

4COSCo02W Mathematics for Computing

Lecture 9

Probability Theory

UNIVERSITY OF
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What is Probability?

Probability measures the likelihood of an event occurring.

Output range: Between *0* (*impossible*) and *1* (*certain*) – $[0,1]$

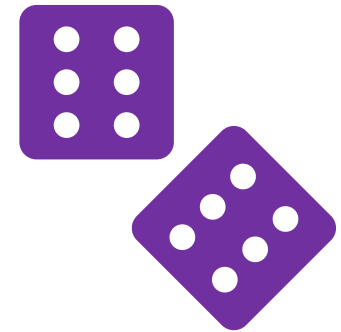
For example:

The chance that a human lives for 1000 years is **0**.

The chance we all die someday is **1**.

Applications:

Critical in computing for decision-making, algorithms, and risk assessment.



Theoretical Probability

Probability of event *A* occurring:

$$P(A) = \frac{\text{Number of favourable outcomes}}{\text{Total number of outcomes}}$$

Number of favourable outcomes: The count of outcomes that are considered as a success or the desired outcome for the event A.

Total number of possible outcomes (probability space): The total count of all possible outcomes for the event, assuming each outcome is equally likely.

NB! Theoretical probability assumes that every outcome has an *equal chance of occurring*.

Common Examples of Probability



Examples: Theoretical Probability

Rolling a Die: The probability of *rolling a 4* on a six-sided die. There is one favorable outcome (rolling a 4), and six possible outcomes.

$$P(4) = \frac{1}{6}$$

Flipping a Coin: The probability of *getting heads* when flipping a fair coin. There is one favorable outcome (heads), and two possible outcomes (heads or tails).

$$P(\text{Heads}) = \frac{1}{2}$$

Drawing a Card: The probability of *drawing an Ace* from a standard deck of 52 cards. There are four favorable outcomes (the four Aces), and 52 possible outcomes.

$$P(\text{Ace}) = \frac{4}{52} = \frac{1}{13}$$

Complementary Events

Events that together cover all possible outcomes are called *complementary*.

If A is an event, the *complement of A* , denoted as A' or sometimes $\bar{A}$, represents all outcomes that are *not in A* . The probability of the complementary event A' is given by:

$$P(A') = 1 - P(A)$$

$P(A)$ is the probability of event A occurring.

$P(A')$ is the probability of event A not occurring.

Example:

If the probability of raining is 0.3, the probability of not raining is 0.7.

Examples: Complementary Events

Coin Toss:

If $P(\text{Heads}) = 0.5$, then $P(\text{Tails}) = 1 - P(\text{Heads}) = 1 - 0.5 = 0.5$.

Drawing a Card:

If the probability of drawing a king from a standard deck of cards is $\frac{4}{52}$ or $\frac{1}{13}$, then the probability of not drawing a king is $1 - \frac{1}{13} = \frac{12}{13}$.

Dice Roll:

If the probability of rolling a 6 on a standard six-sided die is $\frac{1}{6}$, then the probability of not rolling a 6 is $1 - \frac{1}{6} = \frac{5}{6}$.

Independent Events

Independent events in probability theory are two or more events whose occurrence or non-occurrence does not affect the probability of the other events occurring.

If two events, A and B, are independent, the occurrence (or non-occurrence) of A does not change the probability of B occurring, and vice versa.

For two independent events, A and B, the probability of both events occurring is given by the product of their individual probabilities (*multiplication law*):

$$P(A \cap B) = P(A) \times P(B)$$

Examples: Independent Events

Coin Tosses:

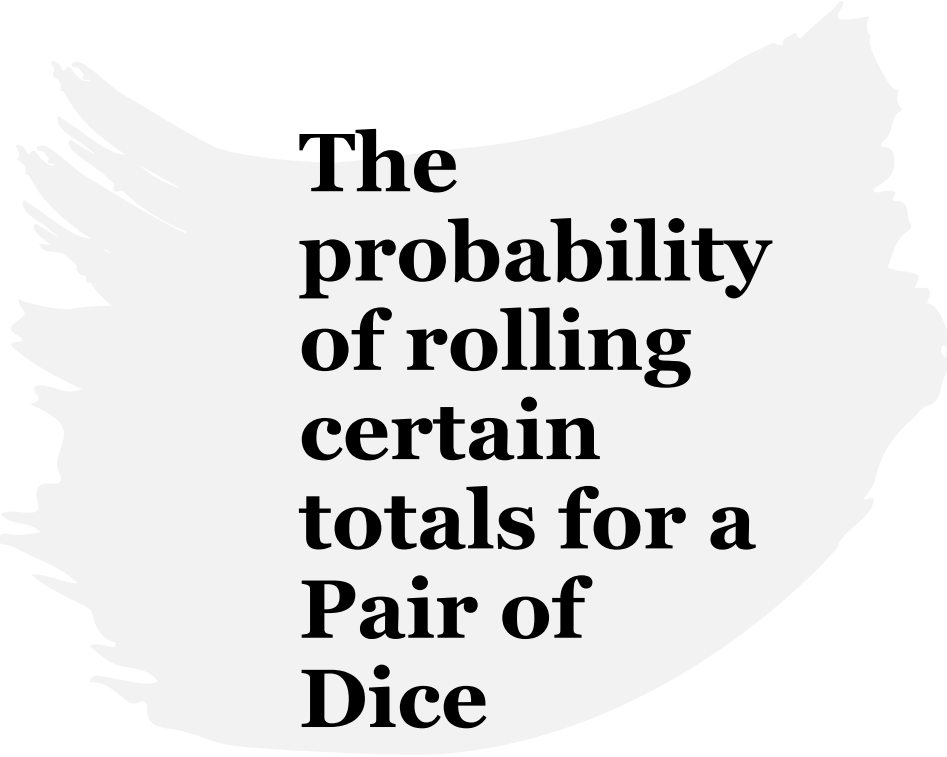
Tossing a coin twice. The outcome of the first toss (say, heads) does not affect the probability of the outcome of the second toss. If $P(\text{Heads}) = 0.5$ for each toss, then $P(\text{Heads and Heads}) = 0.5 \times 0.5 = 0.25$.

Dice and Cards:

Rolling a die and drawing a card from a deck. The probability of rolling a 6 ($1/6$) and drawing an ace ($4/52$) are independent events. So, $P(6 \text{ and Ace}) = \frac{1}{6} \times \frac{4}{52}$.

Traffic Lights:

The probability of hitting a green light on two different traffic signals might be independent if the lights are not synchronised. If the probability of green at each light is 0.3, then $P(\text{Green at both}) = 0.3 \times 0.3 = 0.09$.



The probability of rolling certain totals for a Pair of Dice

Total on Dice	Pairs of Dice	Probability
2	1+1	$1/36 = 3\%$
3	1+2, 2+1	$2/36 = 6\%$
4	1+3, 2+2, 3+1	$3/36 = 8\%$
5	1+4, 2+3, 3+2, 4+1	$4/36 = 11\%$
6	1+5, 2+4, 3+3, 4+2, 5+1	$5/36 = 14\%$
7	1+6, 2+5, 3+4, 4+3, 5+2, 6+1	$6/36 = 17\%$
8	2+6, 3+5, 4+4, 5+3, 6+2	$5/36 = 14\%$
9	3+6, 4+5, 5+4, 6+3	$4/36 = 11\%$
10	4+6, 5+5, 6+4	$3/36 = 8\%$
11	5+6, 6+5	$2/36 = 6\%$
12	6+6	$1/36 = 3\%$

Probabilities
of Outcomes
in Three-Coin
Toss

Specific Outcome	Probability of Specific Outcome	Total Heads in Outcome	Cumulative Probability of Total Heads (%)	Probability Calculation
TTT	1/8	0	12.5%	1/8 (1 outcome out of 8)
TTH	1/8	1	37.5%	3/8 (3 outcomes out of 8)
HTT	1/8	1	37.5%	3/8 (3 outcomes out of 8)
THT	1/8	1	37.5%	3/8 (3 outcomes out of 8)
THH	1/8	2	37.5%	3/8 (3 outcomes out of 8)
HHT	1/8	2	37.5%	3/8 (3 outcomes out of 8)
HTH	1/8	2	37.5%	3/8 (3 outcomes out of 8)
HHH	1/8	3	12.5%	1/8 (1 outcome out of 8)

Conditional Probability

Conditional probability measures the probability of an event occurring, given that another event has already occurred.

$$P(A|B) = \frac{P(A \cap B)}{P(B)}, \text{ where } P(B) > 0$$

Interpretation: It quantifies how the probability of one event changes when another related event is known to occur.

Example:

In a standard deck of 52 cards: *Event A*: Drawing an ace. *Event B*: Drawing a red card.

$$\text{If } P(B) = \frac{26}{52} \text{ and } P(A \cap B) = \frac{2}{52}, \text{ then: } P(A|B) = \frac{P(A \cap B)}{P(B)} = \frac{\frac{2}{52}}{\frac{26}{52}} = \frac{2}{26} = \frac{1}{13}.$$

Example: Conditional Probability

A fair die is rolled. Let **A** be the event that the outcome is an *odd number*, i.e., $A=\{1,3,5\}$. Also let **B** be the event that the outcome is less than or equal to 3, i.e., $B=\{1,2,3\}$.

- What is the Probability Space S ?
- What is $P(A)$?
- What is $P(B)$?
- What is $P(A \cap B)$?
- What is the conditional probability $P(A|B)$?

Example: Conditional Probability

Solution:

Probability Space:

$$S = \{1, 2, 3, 4, 5, 6\}$$

Probability of A:

$$P(A) = \frac{|A|}{|S|} = \frac{|\{1, 3, 5\}|}{6} = \frac{3}{6} = \frac{1}{2}$$

Probability of B:

$$P(B) = \frac{|B|}{|S|} = \frac{|\{1, 2, 3\}|}{6} = \frac{3}{6} = \frac{1}{2}$$

Example: Conditional Probability

Given sets: $A=\{1,3,5\}$ $B=\{1,2,3\}$

Let's find $P(A \cap B)$:

First, we need to define $A \cap B = \{1,3\}$ – 2 common favourable outcomes.

$$P(A \cap B) = \frac{|A \cap B|}{|S|} = \frac{|\{1,3\}|}{6} = \frac{2}{6} = \frac{1}{3}$$

Example: Conditional Probability

Now we can find the conditional probability of A given that B occurred as we know:

$$P(A \cap B) = \frac{1}{3} \text{ and } P(B) = \frac{1}{2}$$

$$P(A|B) = \frac{P(A \cap B)}{P(B)} = \frac{\frac{1}{3}}{\frac{1}{2}} = \frac{1}{3} \times \frac{2}{1} = \frac{2}{3}.$$

Bayes' Theorem

Bayes' Theorem is an extension of conditional probability:

$$P(A|B) = \frac{P(B|A) \times P(A)}{P(B)}$$

where:

$P(A|B)$: The probability of event A occurring given that B is true.

$P(B|A)$: The probability of event B occurring given that A is true.

$P(A)$: The prior or initial probability of event A.

$P(B)$: The prior or initial probability of event B.

NB! Bayes' Theorem Formula is useful when you know $P(B|A)$, $P(A)$, and $P(B)$ but need to calculate $P(A|B)$.

Bayes' Theorem

Bayes' Theorem is a cornerstone of probability theory, allowing us to update beliefs based on new evidence.

Key Applications:

- Medical diagnostics
- Spam email filtering
- Machine learning (e.g., Naive Bayes classifier)



Example:

Spam Filtering with Bayes' Theorem

Scenario:

An email filter detects spam with 95% accuracy. Only 5% of all emails are spam. The filter also incorrectly flags 1% of non-spam emails as spam.

If the filter marks an email as spam, *what is the chance that it is actually spam?*

Using Bayes' Theorem:

$$P(SPAM|FILTER) = \frac{P(FILTER|SPAM) \times P(SPAM)}{P(FILTER)}, \text{ where:}$$

$P(SPAM|FILTER)$: Probability the email is spam, given it was marked as spam.

$P(FILTER|SPAM) = 0.95$: The probability the filter correctly identifies spam.

$P(SPAM) = 0.05$: Probability of any email being spam.

$P(FILTER)$: Probability the filter marks an email as spam.

Example:

Spam Filtering with Bayes' Theorem

STEP 1: CALCULATE P(FILTER):

What is P(FILTER)? It's the chance that the filter marks any email as spam (in general).

This includes two possibilities:

- The email is *actually spam*, and the filter correctly identifies it.
- The email is *not spam*, but the filter incorrectly marks it as spam (a false positive).

Thus:

- Correct spam detections ($FILTER \cap SPAM$): $P(FILTER|SPAM) \times P(SPAM) = 0.95 \times 0.05 = 0.0475$.
- False positives ($FILTER \cap NOT SPAM$): $P(FILTER|NOT SPAM) \times P(NOT SPAM) = 0.01 \times (1 - 0.05) = 0.0095$.

Adding these together gives: $P(FILTER) = 0.0475 + 0.0095 = \mathbf{0.057}$.

Example: Spam Filtering with Bayes' Theorem

STEP 2: APPLY BAYES' THEOREM:

Now substitute into the formula for $P(SPAM|FILTER)$:

$$P(SPAM|FILTER) = \frac{P(FILTER|SPAM) \times P(SPAM)}{P(FILTER)} = \frac{0.95 \times 0.05}{0.057} = \frac{0.0475}{0.057} \approx 0.8333.$$

The probability that an email marked as spam is actually spam is approximately **83.33%**.

Key Takeaway:

Even though the filter is very accurate (95%), its effectiveness also depends on how often spam occurs and the rate of false positives. In this case, the rarity of false positives (1%) means the filter performs well, giving a high probability (83.33%) that a flagged email is truly spam.